

Full-Custom 65nm 8-bit Microprocessor: Complete Design Flow from Architecture to Physical Verification

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Abstract—This paper presents the complete design, implementation, and verification of an 8-bit microprocessor in 65nm CMOS technology using full-custom design methodologies. The processor incorporates an 8-bit ripple-carry ALU, 8-bit logarithmic left shifter, 8×8 SRAM with peripheral circuitry, and PLA-based control logic. A systematic transistor sizing methodology based on minimum-size devices (140nm) with component-specific drive strength multipliers achieved optimal power-area-performance trade-offs. Critical path analysis guided strategic buffer insertion to meet timing constraints. Comprehensive pre-layout and post-layout simulations quantified parasitic effects, revealing an average 241% delay degradation across functional units. All components achieved DRC/LVS verification, with detailed analysis of integration challenges in hierarchical custom design. The complete design flow from architecture through physical verification demonstrates the complexities and trade-offs inherent in deep sub-micron full-custom IC design.

Index Terms—Full-custom design, microprocessor, 65nm CMOS, timing closure, SRAM, physical design, LVS verification

I. INTRODUCTION

The design of full-custom integrated circuits in deep sub-micron technology nodes presents significant challenges in balancing performance, power consumption, and area while maintaining design correctness through physical verification. Unlike standard-cell methodologies that sacrifice optimality for design productivity, full-custom approaches enable fine-grained control over transistor-level implementation, making them essential for performance-critical applications and educational insight into fundamental IC design principles.

This paper presents a complete 8-bit microprocessor implemented in 65nm CMOS technology using full-custom design techniques. The processor integrates an arithmetic logic unit (ALU), left-logarithmic shifter, static random-access memory (SRAM), and programmable logic array (PLA)-based control—all designed from transistor-level schematics through physical layout with comprehensive verification.

A. Motivation and Objectives

The primary objectives of this work include:

- Demonstrate complete full-custom design flow from architecture to verified layout
- Develop systematic transistor sizing methodology for multi-component integration
- Quantify impact of parasitic extraction on circuit performance through pre- and post-layout correlation
- Analyze timing closure challenges and buffer insertion strategies
- Document integration challenges in hierarchical custom IC design

B. Design Specifications

The microprocessor targets the following specifications:

- Technology: 65nm CMOS process
- Data width: 8 bits
- Supply voltage: 1.0V nominal
- Target clock frequency: 100 MHz
- Functional units: ALU (add/subtract), left shifter, 8×8 SRAM
- Control: PLA-based finite state machine

C. Chip Implementation

Figure 1 presents the complete integrated microprocessor layout in 65nm CMOS technology. The design occupies approximately 4,100 μm^2 and demonstrates successful physical implementation of all functional blocks with DRC/LVS-clean verification for individual components.

D. Contributions

This work presents:

- Complete design and verification of a full-custom 8-bit microprocessor in 65nm technology
- Systematic minimum-size-based transistor sizing methodology achieving optimal power-area trade-offs
- Comprehensive pre- and post-layout characterization revealing parasitic impact across all functional units
- Detailed analysis of hierarchical integration challenges and debugging methodology for complex custom designs
- Quantitative timing analysis and critical path optimization strategies

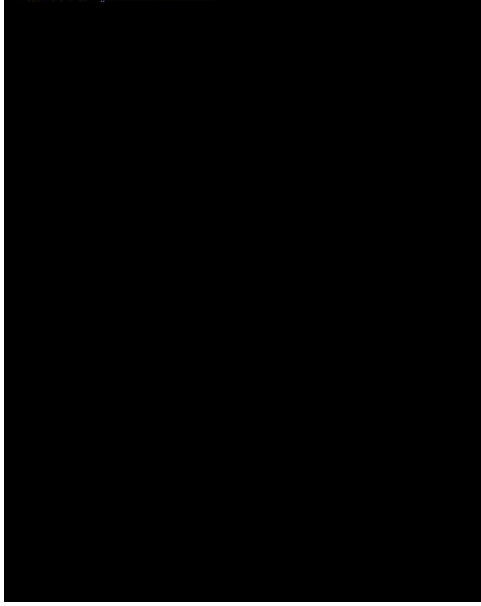


Fig. 1: Complete 8-bit microprocessor layout in 65nm CMOS showing SRAM array (center), ALU (bottom-right), shifter (bottom-left), and PLA (top-left). Total area: 4100 μm^2

E. Paper Organization

The remainder of this paper is organized as follows: Section II provides background on 65nm technology characteristics and design constraints. Section III presents the microprocessor architecture and instruction set. Section IV details the systematic transistor sizing methodology. Section V describes individual component implementations with pre- and post-layout characterization. Section VI discusses system integration, critical path analysis, and physical verification. Section VII presents comprehensive performance analysis across all metrics. Section VIII analyzes design challenges and debugging methodology. Section IX concludes with lessons learned and future work.

II. BACKGROUND AND DESIGN CONSTRAINTS

A. 65nm CMOS Technology Characteristics

The microprocessor is implemented in a 65nm CMOS General Purpose process with the following key parameters:

TABLE I: 65nm Process Design Rules (Key Parameters)

Parameter	Value
Minimum gate length	60 nm
Minimum active width	80 nm
Minimum poly width	60 nm
Minimum M1 width	90 nm
Minimum M2-M5 width	100 nm
Metal layers available	9 (M1-M9)
Metal layers used	5 (M1-M5)
Layout grid	5 nm

The baseline transistor sizing (140nm NMOS, 280nm PMOS) provides 75% margin over process minimums, ensuring

adequate drive strength and manufacturing tolerance. All designs verified DRC-clean.

B. Design Tool Flow

The complete design flow employed the following tools:

- Schematic capture: Cadence Virtuoso
- Simulation: Spectre
- Layout: Cadence Virtuoso Layout Editor
- Physical verification: Mentor Calibre (DRC/LVS)
- Parasitic extraction: Calibre xRC

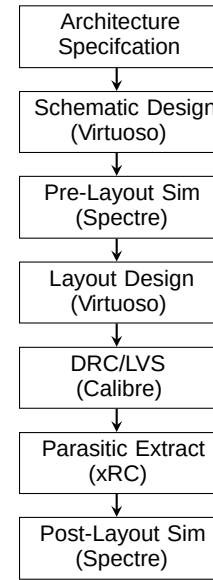


Fig. 2: Full-custom IC design flow.

III. MICROPROCESSOR ARCHITECTURE

A. System Overview

The microprocessor architecture integrates four primary functional blocks through a synchronous datapath controlled by two-phase clocking. Figure 3 illustrates the complete system organization including all functional units and control signals.

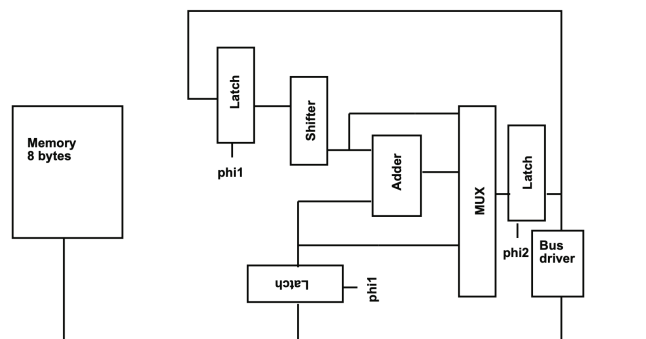


Fig. 3: Microprocessor datapath showing functional units (ALU, Shifter, SRAM), control logic (PLA, latches, bus drivers), 3:1 multiplexer, and two-phase clocking (ϕ_1 , ϕ_2).

The architecture comprises:

- 8×8 SRAM: 64-bit memory array with integrated decoder, precharge, and read/write drivers
- Arithmetic Logic Unit (ALU): 8-bit ripple-carry adder/subtractor with 2's complement support
- 8-bit Logarithmic Left Shifter: 3-bit select for programmable shift amounts (0-7 positions)
- Control Logic: PLA-based control with latches and bus drivers
- Datapath Multiplexer: 3:1 multiplexer routing data between functional units

B. Instruction Set Architecture

The processor implements an 8-instruction set operating on data stored in a two-stage latch system (Φ output latch → Φ latch) with 3-bit indexed addressing for the 8×8 SRAM.

TABLE II: Instruction Set and Datapath Control

Opcode	Inst.	Operation	MUX Select
000	NOP	Hold state	Hold
001	LOAD	Mem[i] → Ext. bus	Hold
010	STORE	Ext. bus → Mem[i]	Hold
011	GET	Φ Latch → Mem[i]	Memory
100	PUT	Mem[i] → Φ Latch	Hold
101	ADD	Φ Latch → Φ Latch + Mem[i]	Adder
110	SUB	Φ Latch → Φ Latch - Mem[i]	Adder
111	SHIFT	Φ Latch → Φ Latch << [amt]	Shifter

Instructions fall into three categories: memory operations (LOAD/STORE bypass latches via external bus; GET loads SRAM data to Φ latch, PUT writes Φ latch output to SRAM), arithmetic operations (ADD/SUB use ripple-carry ALU with 2's complement, operating on Φ latch data), and shift operation (left logical shift by 0-7 positions via 8-bit logarithmic shifter).

The datapath multiplexer routes the selected functional unit output to the Φ latch: Memory output for GET, ALU output for ADD/SUB, Shifter output for SHIFT, or Hold for operations that don't update the Φ latch. The Φ latch output feeds the Φ output latch, which provides data to functional units and external bus. The PLA decodes the 3-bit opcode to generate multiplexer select, functional unit enables, and memory read/write controls (detailed in Section V-D).

C. Datapath Organization

The datapath implements a shared-bus architecture where the 3:1 multiplexer selects between ALU output, shifter output, and SRAM read data (visible in Figure 3). This organization minimizes interconnect complexity while enabling flexible data routing.

Data flows through the system in the following sequence:

- 1) Input data or memory operands captured by Φ latches on rising edge
- 2) Selected functional unit processes data combinational
- 3) Multiplexer routes result to output based on PLA control signals
- 4) Output captured by Φ latch on rising edge and driven to bus

D. Clocking Strategy

The design employs a two-phase non-overlapping clock scheme with phases Φ and Φ to orchestrate data movement and ensure race-free operation.

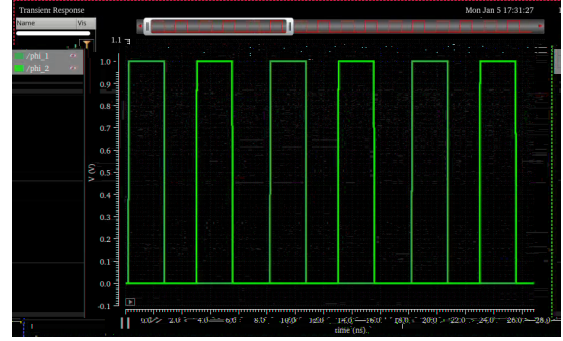


Fig. 4: Two-phase non-overlapping clock waveforms showing Φ , Φ , and dead time regions to prevent race conditions.

Phase Definitions:

- Φ : Controls input latches capturing data from memory and functional unit inputs
- Φ : Controls output latches and enables bus drivers for result propagation

The phases maintain a complementary relationship ($\Phi \approx \Phi$) with intentional dead time between transitions (Figure 4). This non-overlapping requirement prevents:

- Transparent latch paths causing race conditions
- Charge sharing between sequential stages
- Bus contention from simultaneous tri-state driver activation

This two-phase clocking approach is particularly critical for:

- SRAM precharge and evaluation phases
- Proper setup/hold timing for edge-triggered operations
- Pipeline stage isolation in the datapath

E. Control Architecture

Control logic generates multiplexer select signals, functional unit enables, and memory read/write controls. A programmable logic array (PLA) implements the control state machine, generating appropriate signals based on instruction decode. Detailed PLA implementation and timing are discussed in Section V-D.

Bus drivers with tri-state outputs (8×sizing) provide adequate drive strength for the shared datapath bus while enabling high-impedance states when inactive.

IV. DESIGN METHODOLOGY

A. Systematic Sizing Approach

A systematic transistor sizing methodology was developed to balance performance, area, and design complexity across all components.

1) Minimum Sizing Rationale

The baseline transistor sizing employs minimum feature size devices:

- NMOS width: 140 nm (minimum + margin)
- PMOS width: 280 nm (2×NMOS for balanced switching)
- All transistors: minimum length (65nm process)

This minimum-sizing approach was selected for:

- (a) Area minimization: Critical for integrating multiple complex functional units
- (b) Power reduction: Smaller transistors reduce both dynamic and leakage power
- (c) Parasitic management: Reduced gate capacitance and diffusion area minimize layout parasitics

2) Drive Strength Multipliers

Component-specific multipliers scale baseline sizing to meet drive requirements:

TABLE III: Transistor Sizing Multipliers by Component Type

Component Type	NMOS Mult.	PMOS Mult.
NAND gates	2×	2×
NOR gates	1×	4×
Inverters (internal)	1×	2×
Inverters (output buffers)	4×	8×
Transmission gates	1×	1×
Bus drivers & Tri-state buffers	2×	4×

Base unit: 140nm NMOS width

Multiplier selection rationale:

- 2-input NAND/NOR gates: Compensate for series transistor resistance in pull-down and pull-up networks respectively, maintaining balanced switching characteristics
- Inverters: Baseline 2:1 ratio provides balanced rise/fall times; output buffers scaled 4× to drive increased capacitive loads at component boundaries
- Transmission gates: Minimum sizing adequate for internal signal routing with low fanout
- Bus drivers & Tri-state buffers: Moderate drive strength for multiplexer implementation while maintaining fast enable/disable transitions

This systematic approach prioritizes area minimization while ensuring adequate drive strength for functional correctness. Sizing choices were validated through pre-layout simulation and refined based on post-layout timing analysis.

V. COMPONENT DESIGN AND IMPLEMENTATION

This section details circuit-level implementation of each functional unit. Supplementary materials including schematics, layouts, and simulation data are available online [2].

A. Arithmetic Logic Unit (ALU)

1) Architecture

The ALU implements 8-bit addition and subtraction using ripple-carry architecture. Eight mirror adder cells are cascaded with carry propagation from LSB (C0) to MSB (C7), forming the critical path. XOR gates enable 2's complement subtraction by conditionally inverting the B operand.

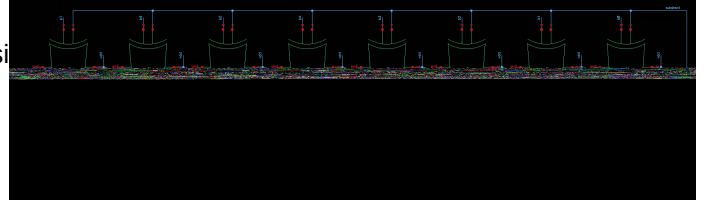


Fig. 5: 8-bit ripple-carry ALU showing cascaded full adder cells (FA) with carry chain (C0-C7) and XOR gates for 2's complement subtraction.

2) Circuit Implementation

Mirror Adder Topology: Each full adder cell (Figure 6) employs a mirror adder architecture with symmetric pull-up and pull-down networks for balanced switching.

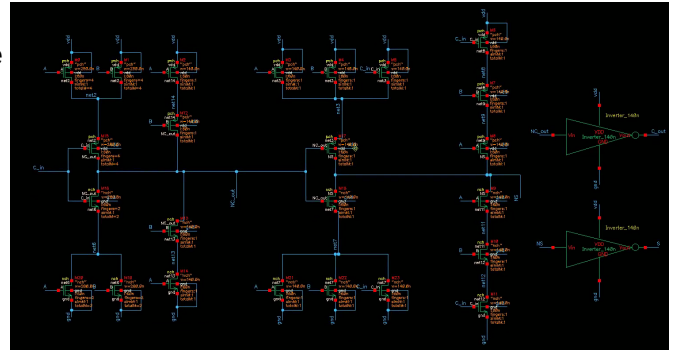


Fig. 6: Mirror adder schematic with two-stage architecture. Stage 1 generates carry with upsized transistors (PMOS 4×, NMOS 2×) to accelerate the critical path. Stage 2 generates sum at sizing (1×1×).

Stage 1 - Carry Generation:

- Logic function: $\overline{C_{out}} = \overline{(A + B)} \cdot C_{in} + A \cdot B$
- Pull-up: (A k B) in series with C_{in} , parallel with (A • B)
- Pull-down: Exact mirror of pull-up for balanced switching
- Upsized for critical path: PMOS 4× (1120nm), NMOS 2× (280nm)
- Output inverter (1×) produces final C_{out}

Stage 2 - Sum Generation:

- Uses $\overline{C_{out}}$ from Stage 1
- Logic function: $\overline{Sum} = \overline{C_{out}} \cdot (A + B + C_{in}) + A \cdot B \cdot C_{in}$
- Baseline sizing: 1×NMOS (140nm), 2×PMOS (280nm relative to 140nm base)

- Output inverter (1×) produces final Sum

Design Rationale: Stage 1 upsizing prioritizes carry propagation speed since the ripple-carry critical path depends on cascaded carry delays. Stage 2 uses 1x/1x sizing to minimize area while maintaining functionality. No up-sizing is needed for stage 2 as path is non-critical.

Advantages of Mirror Adder:

- Balanced delays: Symmetric pull-up/pull-down ensures equal rise/fall times
- Fast carry: Carry generated with only two gate delays (logic stage + inverter)

- Optimized critical path: Stage 1 upsizing directly improves carry chain performance
- Regular layout: Symmetric structure simplifies cell placement and routing

2's Complement Subtraction: Subtraction operation $A - B$ implemented as $A + \overline{B} + 1$.

- XOR gates conditionally invert B operand based on subtract control signal
- Carry-in to LSB full adder set to 1 during subtraction (+1 operation)
- Single operation-select signal controls all eight XOR gates
- Subtraction completes in same time as addition (identical carry chain)

3) Layout Implementation

The ALU layout optimizes area through several techniques (Figure 7):

- Alternating cell orientation (every other FA flipped vertically) enables cell abutment with diffusion sharing at boundaries
- Manhattan routing: M1 for horizontal routing, M2 for vertical routing
- Higher metal layers (M3, M4) used selectively to resolve routing conflicts
- Minimum design-rule spacing throughout: 90nm (M1), 100nm (M2-M5)
- Total area: 465 μm^2 (58 μm^2 per cell average)

4) Testing Methodology

Comprehensive test vectors verified:

- Exhaustive single-bit combinations for full adder cell validation
- Boundary cases: maximum values ($0xFF + 0xFF = \text{overflow}$), zero addition ($0x00 + 0x00 = 0x00$)
- Overflow generation and propagation for 8-bit addition
- Correct 2's complement subtraction including negative results (e.g., $0x05 - 0x08 = 0xFD$)
- Carry chain propagation through all 8 stages with worst case patterns
- Addition/subtraction mode switching validation

5) Simulation Results

TABLE IV: ALU Performance Summary

Metric	Pre-Layout	Post-Layout	$\Delta(\%)$
8-bit Add Delay	218 ps	766 ps	+286
Power @ 1.0V, 25°C	6.4 μW	12 μW	+87
Area	–	465 μm^2	–

The substantial delay degradation (+286%) reflects minimum transistor sizing ($1\times 2\times$ baseline) prioritizing area minimization over performance. Weak drive strength from minimal sizing combined with parasitic capacitance from dense routing (465 μm^2) significantly impacts the unbuffered ripple-carry chain. Power increased 87% due to parasitic capacitance on the metal interconnect. Despite the performance penalty, the 765 ps post-layout delay remains well within the 10 ns period required for 100 MHz operation, validating functional correctness.

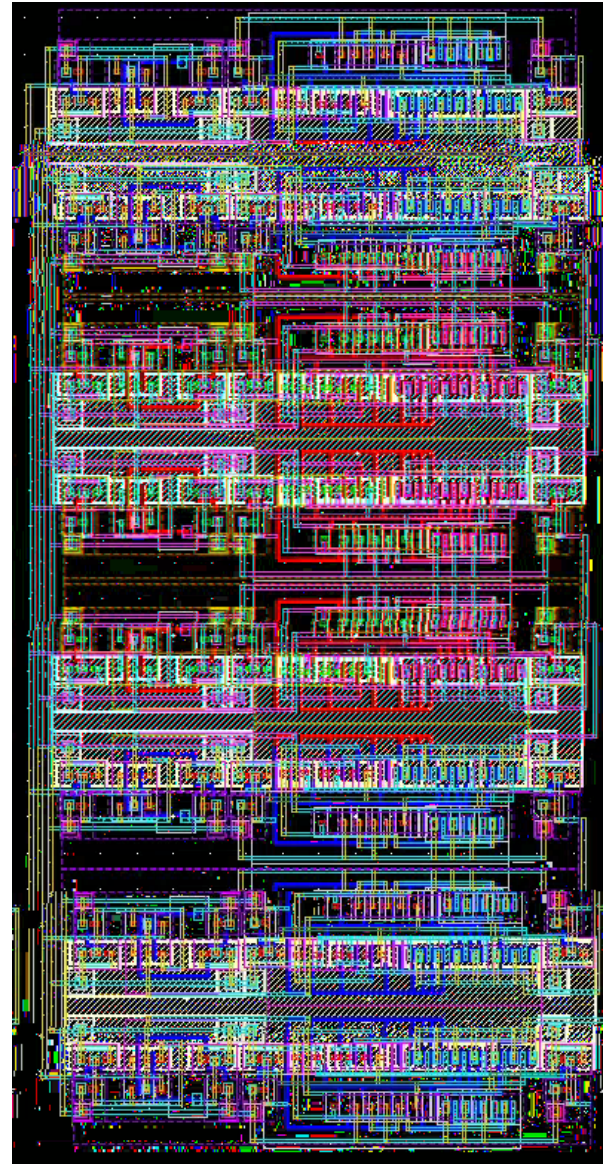


Fig. 7: ALU layout with alternating cell orientation enabling diffusion sharing. Manhattan routing (M1 horizontal, M2 vertical) with minimum spacing. Total area: 465 μm^2 .

metal interconnect. Despite the performance penalty, the 765 ps post-layout delay remains well within the 10 ns period required for 100 MHz operation, validating functional correctness.

B. Logarithmic Left Shifter

1) Architecture

The 8-bit logarithmic left shifter implements variable shift operations (0-7 positions) using a 3-stage cascaded architecture with 3-bit select control. Unlike a barrel shifter which uses a single 8:1 multiplexer per bit position, this design cascades three 2:1 multiplexer stages for significant area reduction at the cost of increased propagation delay.

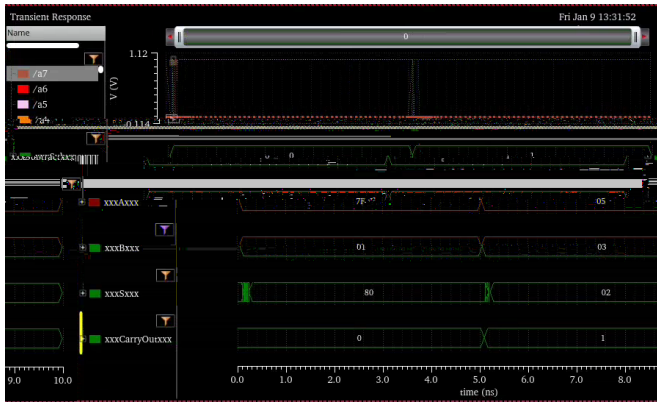


Fig. 8: ALU waveforms showing addition ($0x7F + 0x01 = 0x80$) followed by subtraction ($0x05 - 0x03 = 0x02$, carry-out = 1 indicates no borrow) controlled by subtract signal.

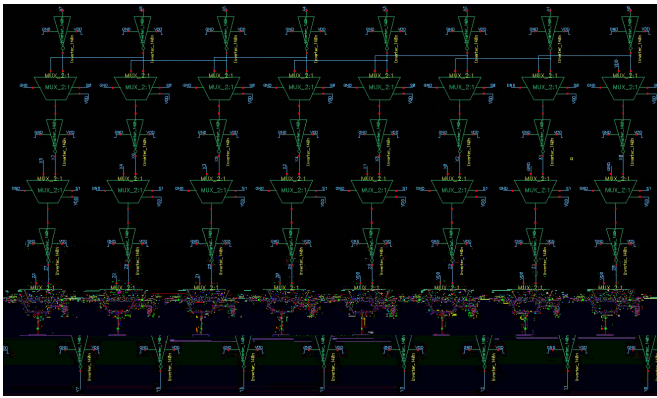


Fig. 9: Logarithmic left shifter architecture showing three cascaded stages: Stage 0 (shift-by-1), Stage 1 (shift-by-2), and Stage 2 (shift-by-4). Binary-weighted select signals $S[2:0]$ enable any shift amount from 0-7 positions. Inverter buffers between stages prevent signal degradation.

2) Circuit Implementation

Cascaded Stage Design: Each stage implements a conditional shift operation controlled by one select bit.

- Stage 0: Eight 2:1 muxes for shift-by-1 (selected by $S[0]$)
 - $S[0]=0$: Pass data through unchanged
 - $S[0]=1$: Shift left by 1 position, inject 0 at LSB
- Stage 1: Eight 2:1 muxes for shift-by-2 (selected by $S[1]$)
 - $S[1]=0$: Pass Stage 0 output unchanged
 - $S[1]=1$: Shift left by 2 positions, inject 00 at LSBs
- Stage 2: Eight 2:1 muxes for shift-by-4 (selected by $S[2]$)
 - $S[2]=0$: Pass Stage 1 output unchanged
 - $S[2]=1$: Shift left by 4 positions, inject 0000 at LSBs
- Binary weighting enables any shift: Shift amount = $4 \times S[2] + 2 \times S[1] + 1 \times S[0]$
- Zero-padding for shifted-in bits (LSB inputs tied to ground)

2:1 Multiplexer Implementation: Figure 10 shows the transmission gate-based 2:1 multiplexer cell used throughout the shifter.

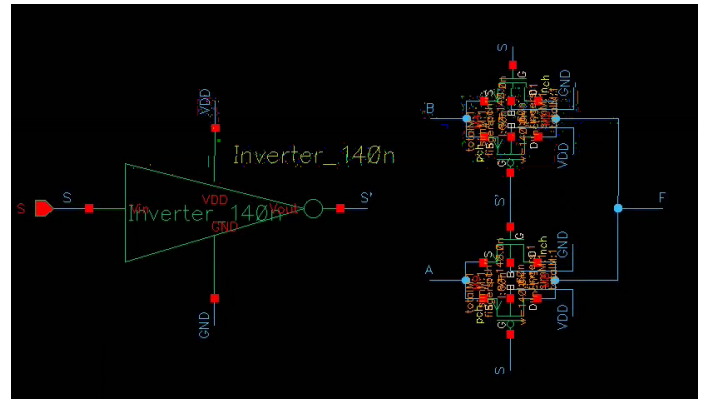


Fig. 10: 2:1 multiplexer cell using transmission gates (1x baseline sizing: 140nm NMOS, 140nm PMOS) with complementary select signals. Inverter buffers (1x2x sizing) at stage outputs restore signal strength and prevent threshold drop accumulation.

- Transmission gates (TG) implement pass-gate multiplexing
- Complementary select signals (S and $\bar{S}$) control NMOS/PMOS
- TG sizing: 1x baseline (140nm NMOS, 140nm PMOS)
- Compact implementation vs. CMOS logic muxes
- Inter-Stage Signal Restoration: Inverter buffers inserted between cascaded stages prevent signal degradation.
- Issue: Three cascaded TG stages cause:
 - Threshold voltage drops (V_H degradation)
 - Weak drive strength from transmission gates
 - Accumulated rise/fall time degradation
- Solution: Inverter pairs (1x2x sizing) after each stage:
 - Restore full rail-to-rail swing (0V to VDD)
 - Provide drive strength for next stage
 - Reset rise/fall times to acceptable levels
- Buffer overhead: 24 inverters total (8 bits $\times$ 3 stages)

3) Area vs. Performance Trade-off

The logarithmic shifter offers significant area savings compared to barrel shifter alternatives:

TABLE V: Shifter Architecture Comparison

Architecture	Multiplexer Count	Relative Delay
Logarithmic (3-stage)	24x2:1 mux	3xmux delay
Barrel (single-stage)	64x8:1 mux	1xmux delay
Area Reduction	62%	3xslower

Design Rationale:

- Shift operations are non-critical in this microprocessor architecture
- Datapath critical path dominated by ALU carry chain or SRAM access
- 3x delay penalty acceptable for 62% area reduction
- Prioritizes area minimization for multi-component integration

This trade-off demonstrates systematic optimization: critical components (ALU Stage 1) receive area investment for performance, while non-critical components (shifter) minimize area.

4) Layout Implementation

The shifter layout organizes the three stages in sequential order from left to right: Stage 0, Stage 1, Stage 2.(Figure 11)

Similar to the ALU, the layout employs alternating component orientation and Manhattan routing (M1 horizontal, M2 vertical) to minimize area and routing complexity. Regular stage structure enables efficient cell placement with minimal inter-stage routing overhead.

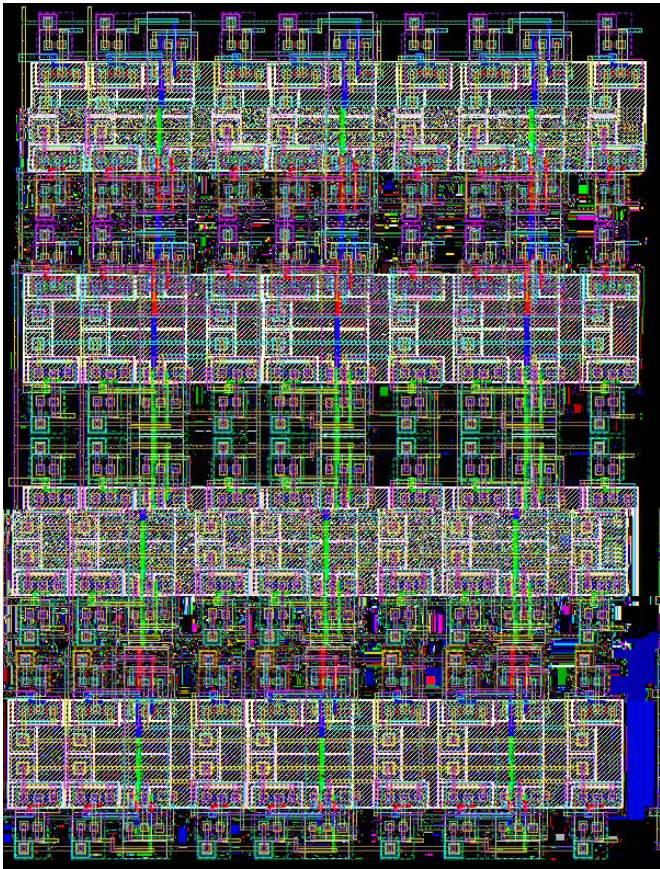


Fig. 11: Logarithmic shifter layout showing three cascaded multiplexer stages with regular structure. Inter-stage buffers are visible between stages. Total area: 424 μm².

5) Testing Methodology

Functional verification used a 3-bit counter generating sequential shift amounts (0-7) with constant input data 10110010 (0xB2). Each shift amount held for one half-cycle, validating correct output patterns and zero-padding through binary observation (Figure 12).

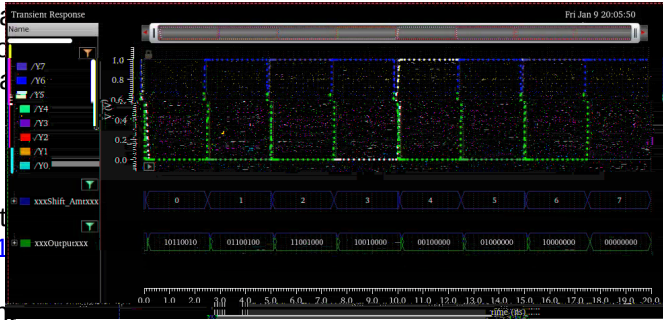


Fig. 12: Shifter test waveforms: shift amount counter cycles 0-7 (middle) with constant input 10110010. Output bits (top) and binary values (bottom) confirm correct shifting and zero-padding.

6) Simulation Results

TABLE VI: Shifter Performance Summary

Metric	Pre-Layout	Post-Layout	Δ(%)
Total shift delay	65 ps	191 ps	+194
Power @ 1.0V, 25°C	5.2 μW	10.1 μW	+94
Area	–	424 μm²	–

Delay increased 194% due to parasitic capacitance on inter-stage routing and within the three cascaded multiplexer stages. Despite the substantial degradation, inter-stage buffers successfully prevent additional threshold drops that would otherwise compound across stages. Power consumption nearly doubled (+94%) due to parasitic capacitance on the metal interconnect, consistent with the compact 424 μm² layout. The three-stage cascade architecture trades performance for area efficiency, achieving a significantly smaller footprint than barrel shifter alternatives.

C. SRAM Module

1) Architecture

The 8x8 SRAM module provides 64 bits of storage organized as 8 words x8 bits. The array was constructed by replicating a provided 4x4 memory block in a 2x2 arrangement, with integrated peripheral circuitry for address decoding, precharge, and read/write control. Two-phase clocking (Φ₁, Φ₂) orches-

trates memory timing.

Array Organization:

- 8x8 array constructed from four 4x4 memory blocks (2x2 configuration)
- Standard 6T SRAM cells with cross-coupled inverters and access transistors
- 8 wordlines (one per row), 8 complementary bitline pairs (one per column)
- 3-bit address input A[2:0] decoded to 8 wordlines (one-hot encoding)
- Simultaneous 8-bit word access across all columns

Peripheral Circuits:

- 3-to-8 Decoder: Two-stage AND-based address decode with Φ gating
- Precharge: PMOS transistors precharge bitlines to VDD during Φ
- Write Drivers: AND-gate based drivers control bitline values when MEMW = HIGH
- Read Buffers: Tri-state buffers output bitline values when MEMR = HIGH

Figure 13 shows the complete system architecture with array and peripheral integration.

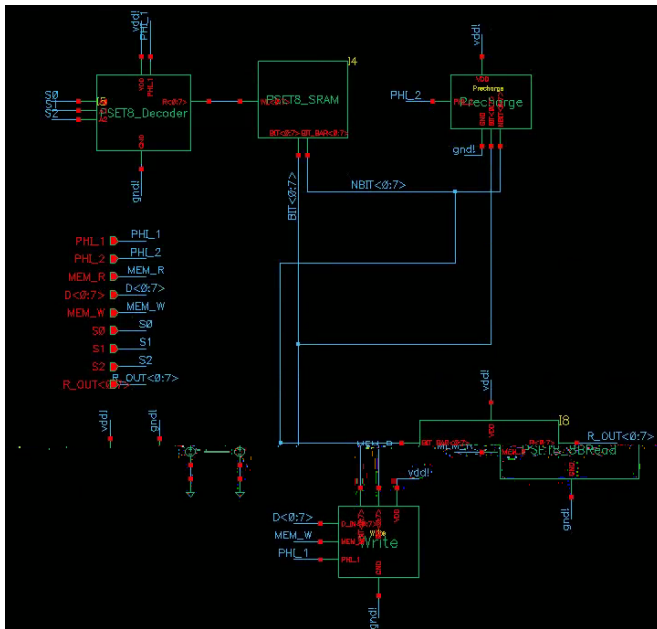


Fig. 13: SRAM system-level schematic showing 8x8 memory array with integrated peripheral circuits: 3-to-8 decoder (left), precharge circuitry (top), write drivers and read buffers (bottom). Two-phase clocking (Φ , Φ) orchestrates operation.

2) Circuit Implementation

All peripheral circuits use consistent transistor sizing based on the 140nm minimum width baseline.

6T Memory Cell: Each cell employs cross-coupled inverters for bistable storage with two access transistors connecting

to complementary bitlines. Wordline activation enables read/write access. Ratioed design ensures read stability (pull-down stronger than access) and adequate write margin.

3-to-8 Row Decoder:

Two-stage 3-input AND-based decoder converts 3-bit address to one-hot wordline activation (Figure 14).

- First stage: Eight 3-input AND gates decode address bits A[2:0]
 - AND gate implementation: 3-input series NMOS pull-down, 3-input parallel PMOS pull-up, followed by output inverter (standard NAND + inverter topology)
 - Sizing: 3x2x (360nm NMOS / 280nm PMOS) for adequate drive

- Second stage: AND gates combine decoded output with Φ for wordline enable
- Wordline drivers sized 1x2x (140nm/280nm) for adequate drive across row
- Guarantees exactly one wordline active per address during Φ

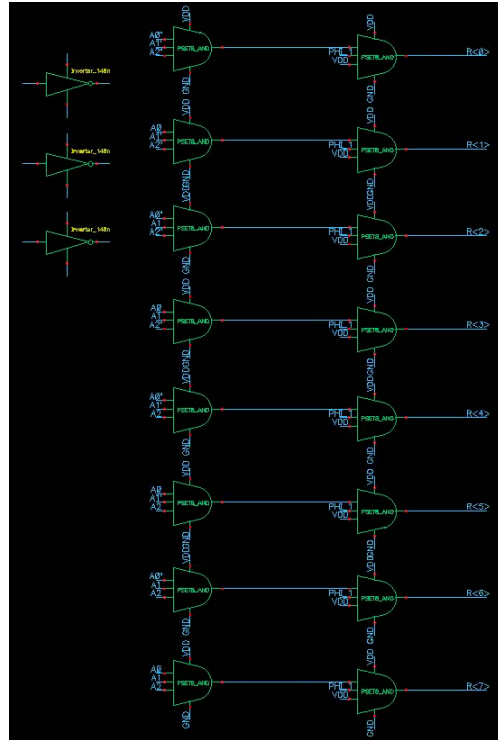


Fig. 14: 3-to-8 decoder: two-stage AND implementation. First stage decodes address, second stage gates with Φ to generate wordline signals.

Precharge Circuitry:

PMOS transistors (1x2x sizing) precharge bitlines to VDD during Φ .

- All bitline pairs pulled to VDD when Φ = HIGH
- Ensures defined starting state before memory access
- Precharge deactivates during Φ (access phase)

3-input AND-gate based write drivers control bitline values during write operations (Figure 15).

• Write enabled when: MEMW = HIGH, Φ = HIGH

- Data_IN = HIGH: AND output pulls bitline HIGH
- Data_IN = LOW: Pull-down forces bitline LOW
- Strong drive (1x2x sizing) overcomes cell feedback to flip storage state

Read Buffers:

Tri-state buffers (2x4x sizing) output bitline values during read (Figure 16).

- Read enabled when: MEMR = HIGH
- Tri-state buffer passes bitline value to data output
- High-impedance state when MEMR = LOW prevents bus contention

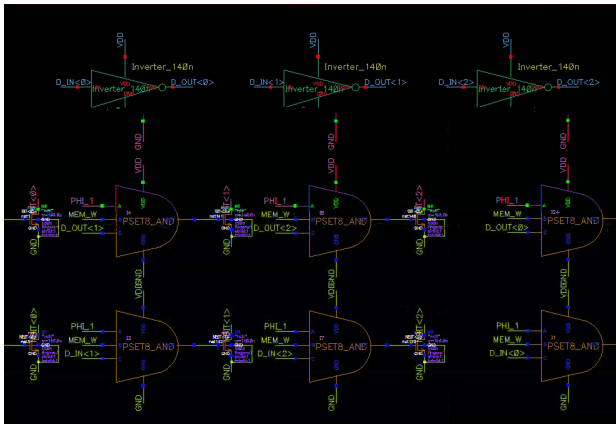


Fig. 15: Write driver for the first three bit/nbit lines using AND buffers sense and output data during reads, and the pre-charge gates to conditionally drive bitlines. Write gated with Φ and data input. Sizing: $1\lambda/2 \times (140\text{nm}/280\text{nm})$.

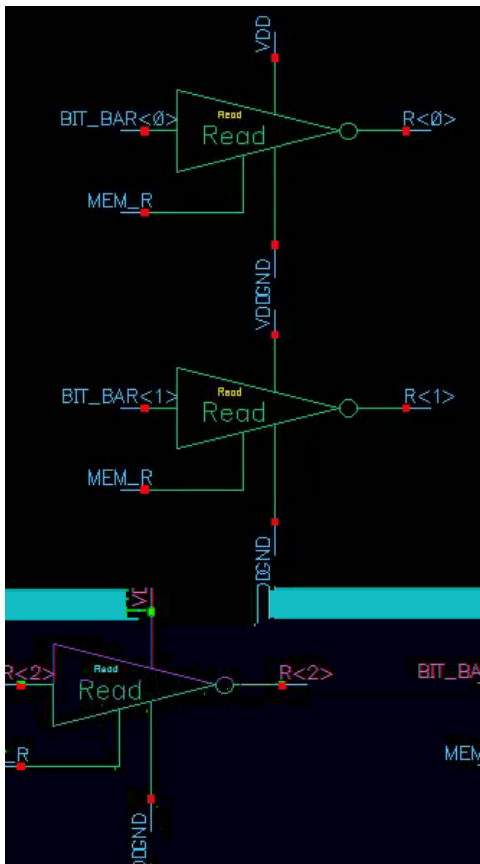


Fig. 16: First 3-bits of read buffer tri-state implementation. Bitline value passes to output when $\text{MEM}_R = \text{HIGH}$; high-Z otherwise. Sizing: $2\lambda/4 \times$

Memory Operation:

Two-phase clocking orchestrates memory access with Φ controlling precharge and Φ controlling wordline activation.

Write Sequence: (1) Φ precharges bitlines to VDD, (2) Φ rising activates wordline, (3) write drivers force bitlines based

on data, (4) cell flips state, (5) Φ falling deactivates wordline.

Read Sequence: (1) Φ precharges bitlines, (2) Φ rising activates wordline, (3) cell pulls bitline based on stored value, (4) read buffer outputs bitline value, (5) Φ falling deactivates wordline.

3) Layout Implementation

The SRAM module layout positions the $8\lambda/8$ memory array in the upper-right region, with peripheral circuitry arranged along the bottom in a left-to-right datapath flow (Figure 17). The $2\lambda/2$ configuration of the provided $4\lambda/4$ memory blocks forms the central array. Peripherals are organized sequentially along the data flow: the decoder (leftmost) generates wordline signals, write drivers control bitline values during writes, read buffers sense and output data during reads, and the pre-charge circuitry (rightmost) initializes bitlines between operations. Manhattan routing is employed throughout (M1 horizontal, M2 vertical) with higher metal layers for array-to-peripheral connections. This modular organization enables clear signal flow and simplified routing between functional blocks.

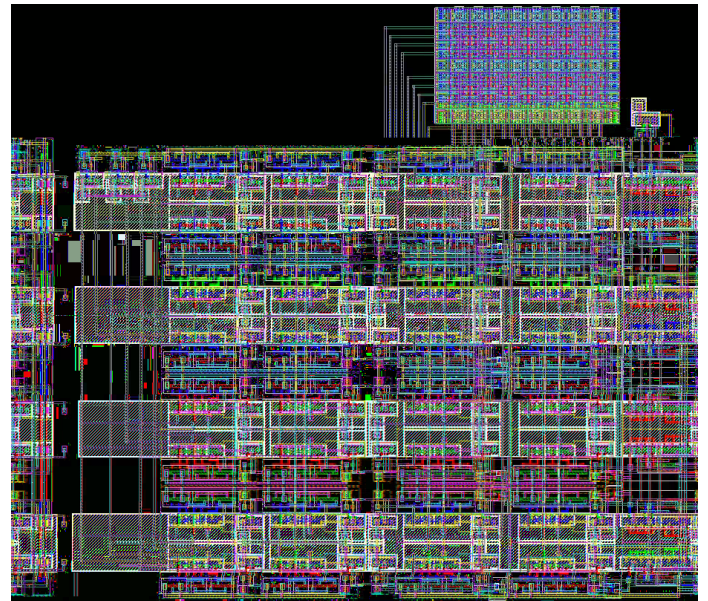


Fig. 17: SRAM module layout: $8\lambda/8$ memory array (top-right, $2\lambda/2$ arrangement of $4\lambda/4$ blocks) with 3-to-8 decoder (left), precharge circuitry (right), write drivers and read buffers (center). Manhattan routing throughout. Total area: $1184 \mu\text{m}^2$.

4) Testing Methodology

Systematic write-then-read verification validated complete SRAM operation using two-phase clocking (20ns period) with sequential address counter cycling through all locations 0-7 (Figure 18).

Test Sequence:

• Write phase (0-160ns): Unique pattern written to each address ($\text{Data}[i] = i$ when $\Phi = \text{HIGH}$, $\text{MEM}_W = \text{HIGH}$. Address counter sequences through all locations with binary-weighted periods.

- Read phase (160-320ns): Sequential read with $MEN = HIGH$. Output R_{OUT} (decimal format) verified against expected pattern: 1, 2, 4, 8, 16, 32, 64, 128.
- Validation: All 64 bits accessed, decoder one-hot activation confirmed, data integrity maintained across cycles, complete end-to-end functionality verified.



Fig. 18: SRAM operation: two-phase clocking with sequential addressing (0-7), write phase (data 1-2), read phase with Q latch output feeds the Q output latch, which provides output verification. Decimal output confirms correct operation: 1, 2, 4, 8, 16, 32, 64, 128.

5) Simulation Results

TABLE VII: SRAM Performance Summary

Metric	Pre-Layout	Post-Layout	$\Delta(\%)$
Write access time	30 ps	103 ps	+243
Read access time	78 ps	—	—
Power @ 1.0V, 25°C	0.93 μW	2.95 μW	+217
Area	—	1184 μm^2	—

* Extraction issues prevent accurate read timing characterization

Post-layout write operations showed +243% delay increase from bitline/wordline parasitic loading and +217% power increase from routing capacitance. Write functionality validated across all 64 locations.

Post-layout read simulations encountered parasitic extraction artifacts related to ground connectivity in the provided 4x4 memory blocks, preventing accurate read timing characterization. The hierarchical block's internal ground nodes exhibit port definition mismatches during extraction, causing bitlines to remain high rather than discharge based on stored values. Write operations remain functional as strong drivers override this issue. This extraction challenge affects both standalone SRAM and full-chip integration. Detailed analysis of root causes, debugging attempts, and lessons learned presented in Section VIII.

D. Control Logic and Datapath

1) Architecture

The control logic and datapath subsystem orchestrates microprocessor operation by decoding instructions, routing data between functional units, and synchronizing operations through two-phase clocking (Figure 19).

System Components:

- PLA: Decodes 3-bit opcode ($OPC[2:0]$), generates 10 control signals for functional units, multiplexers, memory, and latches
- 3-input NAND Multiplexer: Routes SRAM, ALU, or Shifter outputs using one-hot encoded select (3-bit: 100, 010, 001)
- Q Latch: Stores computation results from multiplexer output
- Q Latches: Two latches - one captures input operands, one feeds shifter and provides output
- Bus Drivers: Tri-state buffers enable external memory access and multi-source datapath
- Shift Bypass: AND gate conditionally disables shifter operation based on instruction

Data Flow: Functional unit outputs (SRAM read data, ALU result, Shifter output) feed the 3-input multiplexer. The PLA-controlled select signal (one-hot encoded) routes the appropriate source to the Q latch, which captures results. The Q latch output feeds the Q output latch, which provides inverted output Q to the shifter input and, through a bus driver (which inverts again), provides non-inverted output to external interfaces. This design minimizes inverter stages in the critical path by exploiting natural inversions in the latches and tri-state buffer.

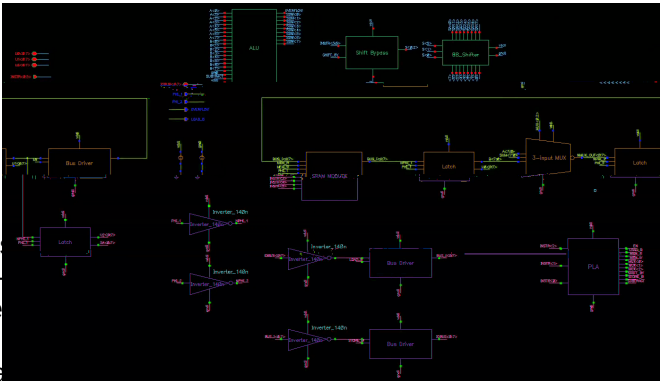


Fig. 19: Control logic and datapath system schematic showing component interconnections and signal flow from PLA through multiplexers, latches, and bus drivers.

2) Circuit Implementation

Programmable Logic Array (PLA):

The PLA implements instruction decode using two-level logic structure. The physical implementation places the OR plane on the left followed by the AND plane on the right, with output inverters to produce non-inverted control signals. The design was optimized using Espresso logic minimization, reducing the implementation to 10 product terms for 10 control outputs (Figure 20).

- Inputs: 3-bit opcode $OPC[2:0]$ ($instr[0:2]$ in schematic)
- OR Plane: Combines product terms using NOR-based implementation (leftmost)

- AND Plane: Generates product terms using NAND-based implementation (3-input series NMOS pull-down, parallel PMOS pull-up, followed by inverter)
- Output Inverters: Ten inverters restore non-inverted logic levels from AND plane outputs
- Outputs (10 total):
 - Multiplexer select: mux[2:0] (one-hot encoded: 100, 010, 001)
 - ALU control: subtract (selects subtraction mode)
 - Memory controls: mem_r (read), mem_w (write)
 - Bus control: en (enables Φ latch output bus driver)
 - External data: load_b (load external data to memory), store_b (store data to external)
 - Shifter control: shift_{by} (bypasses shift operation)
- Transistor sizing: 2×4× (280nm NMOS / 560nm PMOS) for adequate drive to distributed loads

TABLE VIII: PLA Instruction Decode Truth Table

OPC	subtract	mux[0]	mux[1]	mux[2]	en
000	0	1	0	0	0
001	0	1	0	0	0
010	0	1	0	0	0
011	0	0	0	1	0
100	0	1	0	0	1
101	0	0	1	0	0
110	1	0	1	0	0
111	0	1	0	0	0

OPC	mem _w	mem _r	shift _{by}	load _b	store _b
000	0	0	1	0	0
001	0	1	0	0	0
010	0	1	1	0	1
011	0	1	0	0	0
100	1	0	1	0	0
101	0	1	1	0	0
110	0	1	1	0	0
111	0	0	0	0	0

The PLA truth table (Table VIII) maps each opcode to its corresponding control signals. Logic minimization reduced redundant product terms while maintaining correct functionality for all eight instructions. The OR-plane-first architecture with output inversion provides the required non-inverted control signals to downstream logic.

3-Input NAND Multiplexer:

The datapath multiplexer uses a NAND-based topology for minimal delay in the critical path:

- Three 8-bit inputs: SRAM read data, ALU output, Shifter output
- Three NMOS transistors (minimum sizing: 140nm) implement NAND function
- One-hot select encoding (100, 010, 001) ensures only one input active
- Output inverter (1×2× 140nm/280nm) generates final mux output
- Single-stage NAND implementation minimizes propagation delay compared to transmission gate alternatives

The NAND topology was chosen over transmission gates to meet critical path timing requirements. The single logic stage

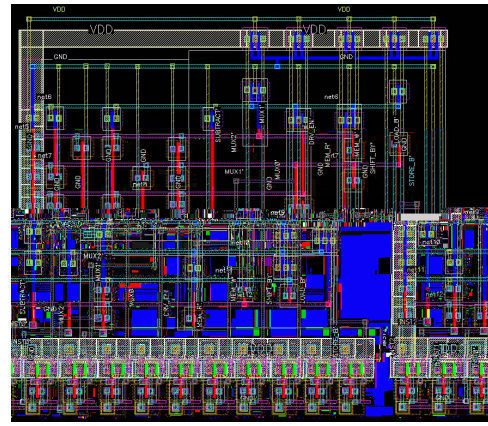


Fig. 20: PLA layout showing OR plane (left), AND plane (right), and output inverters. Transistor sizing: 1×2× (140nm/280nm) for adequate drive strength. Total product terms: 10. Total area: 270 μm^2 .

(NAND + inverter) provides faster operation than cascaded transmission gates while maintaining compact area.

D-Latches:

Transmission gate-based D-latches synchronize data movement through two-phase clocking:

- Latch topology: TG-based with cross-coupled inverter feedback for state retention
- Transistor sizing: Baseline 1×1×(140nm/140nm) adequate for non-critical latch timing while minimizing area
- Φ operand latch: Captures input operands during first clock phase
 - Transparent when Φ = HIGH (data passes through)
 - Hold when Φ = LOW (data retained in feedback loop)
- Φ output latch: Feeds shifter input and external bus
 - $\bar{Q}$ output exploited for critical path optimization (eliminates inverter stage to shifter)
 - Transparent when Φ = HIGH, holds when Φ = LOW
- Φ latch: Stores computation results from multiplexer
 - Captures functional unit output when Φ = HIGH
 - Holds result across multiple cycles
 - Feeds Φ output latch for shifter feedback path
- Non-overlapping clock phases prevent race conditions and hold violations

Critical Path Optimization: The Φ output latch uses its inverted output $\bar{Q}$ directly to feed the shifter input, eliminating an inverter delay in the critical path. For external bus output, the latch $\bar{Q}$ feeds a tri-state bus driver, which inherently inverts, producing the correct non-inverted output. This design exploits natural logic inversions to minimize gate count and delay.

Bus Drivers:

Tri-state buffers enable multiple sources on the shared

datapath bus:

- Implementation: Tri-state buffer topology (same as SRAM read buffers)

- Transistor sizing: 2×4×(280nm/560nm) provides ade-

quate drive strength for bus capacitance

- Enable signals: PLA-controlled to prevent bus contention
- High-impedance state: Inactive drivers present high-Z, allowing other sources to drive
- Multiple bus drivers positioned throughout datapath for external memory access and functional unit outputs

Bus driver enables timing validation to ensure no overlap between active drivers, preventing electrical conflicts on shared buses.

Shift Bypass Logic: Three AND gates implement conditional shifter disable:

- Inputs: Shift amount $S[2:0]$ and `shiftbypass` signal from PLA
- When `shift_bypass` = LOW (shift enabled): AND gate passes shift amount to shifter
- When `shift_bypass` = HIGH (shift disabled): AND gate outputs 000, forcing zero-shift (bypass)
- Allows shift instruction (opcode 111) while disabling shift for other instructions using shifter datapath

3) Layout Implementation

The control logic and datapath components are integrated within the full microprocessor layout, positioned to minimize routing distance and maintain systematic data flow (Figure 21).

Component Placement:

- PLA: Located in upper-left region with regular array structure showing distinct OR plane (left) and AND plane (right) followed by output inverters
- 3-Input Mux: Positioned to the right to receive inputs from SRAM, ALU, and Shifter, following left-to-right data flow
- Latches: Distributed throughout datapath near their respective sources and destinations - Φ latch captures mux output, operand latches positioned near functional unit inputs
- Bus Drivers: Positioned at chip periphery and datapath boundaries for external interface connections (visible along left and right edges)
- Shift Bypass: AND gate integrated near PLA (upper-left region)

Manhattan routing employed throughout (M1 horizontal, M2 vertical) with higher metal layers (M3-M5) for cross-chip control signal distribution from PLA to distributed functional units. The systematic left-to-right data flow organization minimizes control signal routing overhead while maintaining clear signal paths. Control logic area represents approximately 30% of total chip area (1180 μm^2 of total 4100 μm^2).

4) Testing Methodology

Component-level testing validated control logic and datapath functionality before full-system integration. Comprehensive test waveforms and detailed verification data available in supplementary materials [2].

PLA Decode Verification: All 8 opcodes (000-111) applied sequentially to PLA inputs. Verified correct control signal generation

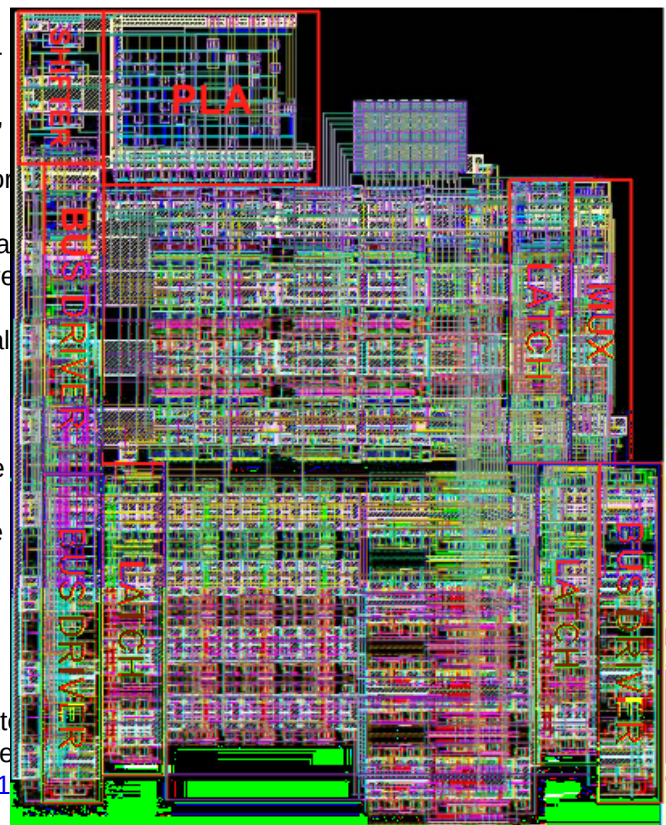


Fig. 21: Microprocessor layout with control logic components highlighted: PLA decode array (upper-left), 3-input NAND mux (center-right), Φ & Φ_2 latches (distributed), bus drivers (periphery), and shift bypass (upper-left). Control subsystem integrates with functional units following systematic left-to-right data flow.

eration for each instruction per Table VIII. Confirmed mutually exclusive mux select signals (one-hot encoding maintained) and no conflicting enable signals (e.g., ALU and Shifter not simultaneously enabled).

Multiplexer Routing: Three distinct test patterns (0xAA, 0x55, 0xFF) applied to SRAM, ALU, and Shifter inputs. Select signals cycled through one-hot encodings: 100 (SRAM), 010 (ALU), 001 (Shifter). Verified correct input routed to Φ_2 latch output for each select combination. Confirmed NAND logic operates correctly with proper output inversion.

Latch Timing Validation: Two-phase clock operation verified with non-overlapping Φ and Φ_2 . Φ operand latch captures input data correctly. Φ_2 latch stores multiplexer results across multiple cycles with data integrity maintained through transparent and hold phases. Φ output latch feeds shifter with proper timing. No race conditions observed between latch stages. Verified Φ_2 output from Φ output latch provides correct inverted signal for shifter input.

Bus Driver Operation: Tri-state enable/disable transitions (no bus loading). Drive strength adequate for bus capacitance

with no signal degradation. Multiple drivers validated for no contention (mutually exclusive enables).
Shift Bypass Functionality: Shift amount $S[2:0]$ varied with bypass control toggled. Verified bypass HIGH forces zero-shift (AND gate outputs 000) and bypass LOW passes shift amount unchanged.

Full instruction execution testing, which exercises integrated control logic with all functional units, is presented in Section VI.

5) Simulation Results

TABLE IX: Control Logic Performance Summary

Metric	Pre-Layout	Post-Layout	$\Delta(\%)$
Timing			
PLA decode delay	40 ps	114 ps	+185
Mux propagation delay	128 ps	132 ps	+3
Latch setup time	30 ps	57 ps	+90
Power @ 1.0V, 25°C			
PLA	736 μW	830 μW	+13
3-input Mux	1.65 μW	3.03 μW	+83
Latches (3 $\times$)	4.8 μW	10.08 μW	+110
Bus Drivers (3 $\times$)	7.1 μW	7.3 μW	+3
Shift Bypass	0.5 μW	0.6 μW	+20
Total Control Power	750.8 μW	851.0 μW	+13
Area			
Total control logic area	–	1180 μm^2	–

Control logic timing is non-critical compared to functional unit delays (ALU: 765 ps, Shifter: 191 ps), validating the baseline transistor sizing strategy. PLA decode delay increased +185% due to array routing parasitics, while mux and latch delays showed modest degradation (+3% and +90% respectively).

Total control logic power (851 μW post-layout) is dominated by the PLA decode array (830 μW , 98%), which continuously evaluates all product terms during instruction cycling. The two-level AND-OR structure with baseline sizing prioritizes fast decode over power optimization, representing a speed-versus-power trade-off. This contrasts with functional units (ALU: 12 μW , Shifter: 10.1 μW) which were optimized for area and power rather than performance. Post-layout power degradation (+13%) remained low as the PLA's large baseline power consumption limited the proportional impact of parasitic capacitance. Control logic area (1180 μm^2) contributes 30% to total chip area while providing essential instruction decoding functionality.

VI. SYSTEM INTEGRATION AND VERIFICATION

A. Full-Chip Layout and Floorplanning

The complete microprocessor layout integrates all functional units with control logic and I/O infrastructure (Figure 22). Component placement follows a systematic left-to-right data flow organization to minimize routing congestion and enable efficient Manhattan routing structure.

Floorplan Organization:

- SRAM Module: Center, 1184 μm^2 (29% of chip area)
- ALU: Lower-right with eight cascaded mirror adder cells, 465 μm^2 (11%)
- Shifter: Lower-left showing three sequential stages, 424 μm^2 (10%)
- Control Logic: PLA (upper-left), mux (center-right), latches (distributed), 1180 μm^2 (29%)
- Routing and Overhead: Interconnect, power distribution, 847 μm^2 (21%)

Total chip area: 4100 μm^2 (approximately 72 $\mu\text{m} \times 56 \mu\text{m}$). The systematic organization reduces routing complexity while maintaining clear signal flow between functional blocks.

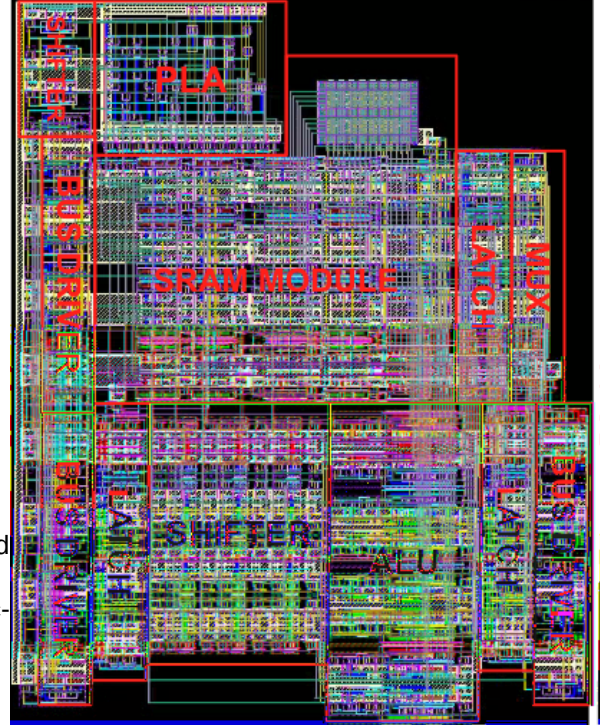


Fig. 22: Complete microprocessor floorplan with functional blocks annotated. Manhattan routing with five metal layers. Total area: 4100 μm^2 .

B. Critical Path Analysis

System-level critical path analysis identified the datapath through cascaded functional units as the dominant timing constraint (Figure 23).

Critical Path Identification:

The microprocessor datapath architecture cascades functional units in series from the output latch through shifter, ALU, and multiplexer to the next latch. This creates the longest combinational delay between storage elements.

Pre-Layout Measurement:

Full-chip pre-layout simulation measured the critical path delay from the output latch to the next latch input: 248 ps (Figure 24). This measurement captures all routing delays and signal propagation through the integrated design. The test input

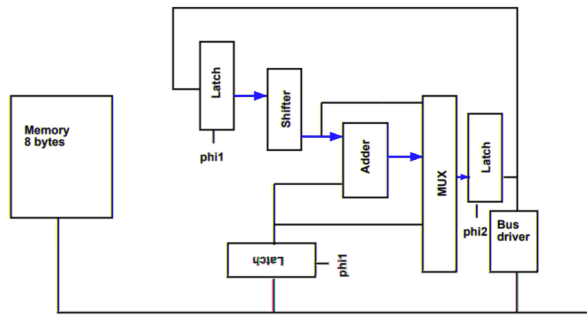


Fig. 23: Critical path (red) from Φ output latch through shifter, ALU, and multiplexer to Φ latch.

patterns did not trigger full ripple-carry propagation through all 8 ALU stages, resulting in faster delay than the worst-case sum of component delays (Shifter 65 ps + ALU 198 ps + Mux 128 ps = 391 ps).

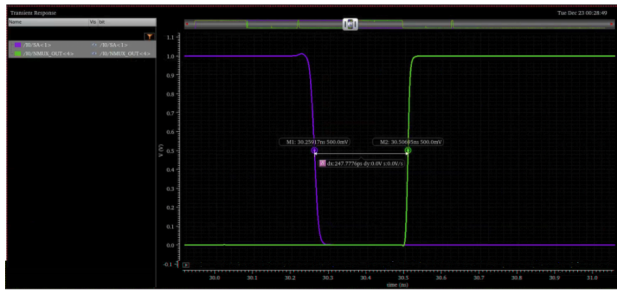


Fig. 24: Pre-layout critical path timing waveforms showing 248 ps delay from Φ latch output (input transition) to Φ latch input (final transition).

Post-Layout Analysis:

Post-layout characterization of the integrated critical path was not available due to full-chip extraction challenges (detailed in Section VIII). Component-level post-layout delays provide an estimated upper bound:

- Shifter: 191 ps (post-layout)
- ALU: 765 ps (post-layout)
- Mux: 132 ps (post-layout)
- Estimated upper bound: 1088 ps

Timing Margin:

- Target clock period: 10 ns (100 MHz)
- Estimated critical path: 1088 ps (worst case)
- Timing margin: > 8900 ps (>89%)

The substantial margin validates the minimum-sizing approach for the 100 MHz target. The ALU ripple-carry chain dominates the critical path (765 ps, 70% of total), identifying it as the primary target for performance optimization in future iterations.

C. Physical Verification

Comprehensive physical verification ensured design correctness through DRC and LVS checks for all functional blocks.

TABLE X: Physical Verification Summary

Component	DRC Status	LVS Status
ALU (8 full adders)	Clean	Clean
Shifter (3 stages)	Clean	Clean
SRAM (8x8 + peripherals)	Clean	Clean
Control Logic (PLA + datapath)	Clean	Clean
Full Chip Integration	Clean	Clean

Complete DRC/LVS reports available in supplementary materials [2]

Design Rule Check (DRC): All components achieved DRC-clean status with zero violations:

- Minimum spacing rules verified for all metal layers (M1-M5)
 - Via enclosures and overlap rules satisfied
 - Transistor sizing within process specifications
 - No density violations or antenna effects detected
- Layout vs. Schematic (LVS): Individual functional blocks passed LVS verification:
- Net connectivity matches schematic topology
 - Device counts and sizing parameters correct
 - Port connections verified across hierarchy

D. Full-System Functional Testing

Comprehensive instruction-level testing validated end-to-end microprocessor operation through a systematic workflow that exercises all functional units and data routing paths.

Test Workflow:

A representative instruction sequence was designed to test integrated datapath operation:

- 1) LOAD (001): Write data 01101011 (107 decimal) to SRAM address 010
- 2) GET (011): Read data from SRAM to Φ latch
- 3) SHIFT (111): Left-shift latch data by 2 positions (shift amount = 010)
- 4) ADD (101): Add SRAM data to shifted result
- 5) SUB (110): Subtract SRAM data from sum
- 6) PUT (100): Write result back to SRAM
- 7) STORE (010): Output SRAM data to external bus
- 8) NOP (000): Idle state

This sequence validates: memory read/write operations, functional unit computation (shift, add, subtract), multiplexer routing between three sources, latch state preservation across cycles, and external bus interface.

Test Configuration:

- Two-phase clocking: Φ and Φ with 10 ns period each
- Total test duration: 80 ns (8 instructions $\times$ 10 ns each)
- Instruction encoding: instr[0]=00111100, instr[1]=01101010, instr[2]=11110000
- Input data: bus[0:7] = 01101011 (107 decimal)
- SRAM address / Shift amount: instr[3:5] = 010 (constant throughout)

Multiplexer and Datapath Verification:

Figure 25 shows the inverted multiplexer output (NMUX_OUT) captured by the Φ latch, while Figure 26 shows the non-inverted shifter input captured by the Φ output latch (10 ns delayed). Both signals confirm correct

datapath operation and signal restoration through the latch feedback path.

TABLE XI: Datapath Verification: Expected vs. Measured Results

Operation	Time (ns)	NMUX Output	Shifter Input
GET	10-20 / 20-30	10010100	01101011
SHIFT	20-30 / 30-40	01010011	10101100
ADD	30-40 / 40-50	11101000	00010111
SUB	40-50 / 50-60	01010100	10101100

All measured values match expected computation



Fig. 25: Multiplexer output (NMUX_OUT) showing inverted datapath results captured at Q latch for GET, SHIFT, ADD, and SUB operations.

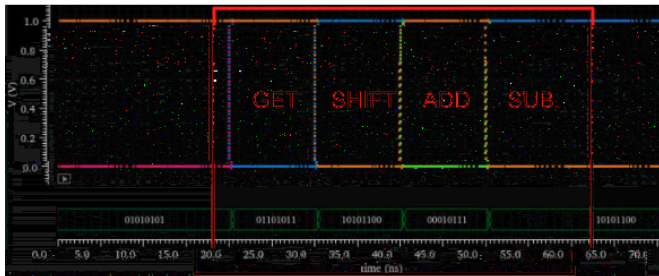


Fig. 26: Shifter input showing non-inverted data from Q output latch, demonstrating proper signal restoration and ns phase delay.

External Bus Interface: During LOAD (0-10ns) and STORE (60-70ns) operations, bus drivers correctly output data to external interfaces, validating tri-state control and memory-to-external data paths.

Validation Summary: This systematic test confirms successful full-chip integration by validating:

- 1) PLA correctly decodes all opcodes to appropriate control signals
- 2) Multiplexer routes three sources (SRAM, ALU, Shifter) without conflicts
- 3) Functional units produce correct computational results
- 4) Two-phase clocking synchronizes data movement without race conditions
- 5) Latches preserve state across instruction boundaries

- 6) Signal inversion through datapath is correctly handled (inverted at Q , restored at Q)
- 7) External bus interface operates correctly

E. Integration Challenges

Full-chip integration revealed several challenges inherent to hierarchical custom design:

Hierarchical Block Integration: The provided 4x4 SRAM blocks presented port definition challenges during parasitic extraction. Internal ground node naming within the hierarchical block did not match global VSS connections, causing extraction tools to treat them as separate nets. This manifested as read path failures in post-layout simulation (detailed in Section VIII).

Power Distribution: VDD and GND distribution employed power mesh on M4/M5 with multiple vias to lower metal layers for supply connections. IR drop analysis showed maximum 30 mV drop across chip, well within acceptable limits for 1.0V operation.

Additional integration challenges including clock distribution and signal integrity are discussed in detail in Section VIII.

VII. PERFORMANCE ANALYSIS

This section provides comprehensive performance analysis across all metrics, comparing pre-layout and post-layout results to quantify parasitic impact.

A. Component-Level Performance Summary

Table XII consolidates performance metrics for all functional units, enabling direct comparison of parasitic effects across different circuit topologies.

TABLE XII: Overall Component Performance Summary

Component	Pre-Delay	Post-Delay	Power (Post)	Area
ALU	198 ps	765 ps	12.0 μ W	465 μ m ²
Shifter	65 ps	191 ps	10.1 μ W	424 μ m ²
SRAM (write)	30 ps	103 ps	2.95 μ W	1184 μ m ²
Control Logic	128 ps	132 ps	851 μ W	1180 μ m ²
System	–	1125 ps	876 μ W	4100 μ m ²

^{*}Mux delay (non-critical path)[†]Critical path (ADD/SUB instruction)

Key Observations:

- ALU exhibits highest delay degradation (+286%) due to minimum sizing and unbuffered ripple-carry
- Shifter degradation (+194%) reflects three-stage cascade with inter-stage routing
- SRAM write degradation (+243%) dominated by word-line and bitline parasitic loading
- Control logic power (851 μ W) dominated by PLA continuous decode activity (98% of control power)
- Total system power heavily influenced by control logic decode overhead

B. System-Level Timing Analysis

Post-layout timing analysis confirms all paths meet 100 MHz target with substantial margin.

Instruction Timing Breakdown:

- ADD/SUB (Critical): 1125 ps total path delay
 - ALU computation: 765 ps (68% of total)
 - Control + routing: 360 ps (32% of total)
- SHIFT: 494 ps (PLA + Shifter + Mux + Latch)
- GET/PUT: 406 ps (PLA + SRAM + Mux + Latch)
- Maximum frequency: 889 MHz (1/1125ps)
- Target frequency: 100 MHz (10 ns period)
- Timing margin: 88.8%

The substantial margin indicates the minimum-sizing strategy successfully balanced area minimization with performance requirements. The design is limited by ALU carry propagation, suggesting future optimization should focus on carry acceleration techniques.

C. Power Consumption Analysis

System power consumption is dominated by control logic, revealing a significant trade-off in the design approach.

TABLE XIII: Power Distribution Breakdown

Component	Power (μ W)	Percentage
Control Logic (PLA dominant)	851.0	97.1%
ALU	12.0	1.4%
Shifter	10.1	1.2%
SRAM	2.95	0.3%
Total System Power	876.1	100%

Analysis: The PLA's continuous decode activity dominates power consumption (830 μ W of 876 μ W total), representing a design trade-off that prioritizes decode speed over power efficiency. Functional units (ALU, Shifter, SRAM) collectively consume only 25 μ W (3% of total), validating the minimum-sizing approach for these components. Future power optimization should focus on PLA activity reduction through techniques such as:

- Clock gating during NOP instructions
- Dynamic logic with conditional evaluation
- Registered outputs to reduce product term switching
- Alternative decoder architectures (e.g., row-column decode)

D. Area Breakdown

Component area distribution reflects the design's emphasis on memory and control functionality.

Area Allocation:

- Memory (SRAM): 1184 μ m² (29%) - largest single component due to array structure
- Control Logic: 1180 μ m² (29%) - PLA regularity enables dense implementation
- Functional Units: 889 μ m² (22%) - minimum sizing achieves compact arithmetic/shifter
- Routing/Overhead: 847 μ m² (21%) - interconnect between distributed blocks

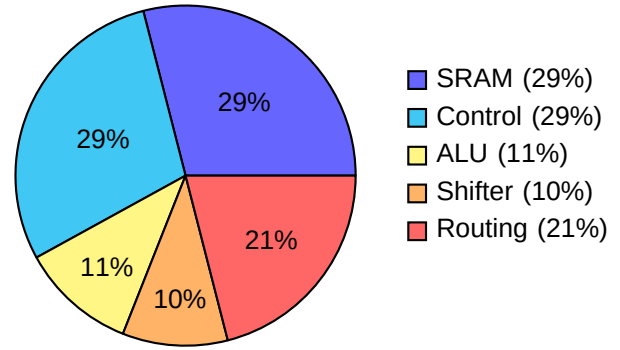


Fig. 27: Chip area distribution showing SRAM and control logic each occupy 29% of total area, with functional units (ALU, Shifter) contributing 21% and routing/overhead 21%. Total chip area: 4100 μ m².

The balanced area distribution demonstrates successful integration of multiple complex functional units within a compact 4100 μ m² footprint. Minimum-sizing methodology enabled dense functional unit implementation while maintaining adequate drive strength for correct operation.

VIII. DESIGN CHALLENGES AND LESSONS LEARNED

This section documents significant design challenges encountered during implementation, providing insights into full-custom IC design complexity and systematic debugging methodology.

A. SRAM Read Path Extraction Challenge

The most significant integration challenge involved post-layout read failures in the SRAM module due to parasitic extraction artifacts from the provided 4x4 memory blocks.

Problem Description: Post-layout SRAM read operations exhibited incorrect behavior with bitlines remaining pulled high (V_{DD}) rather than discharging based on stored cell state. Write operations functioned correctly, allowing data storage but preventing read verification. This behavior occurred in both standalone SRAM testbenches and full-chip integration. All custom-designed peripheral circuits (decoder, precharge, write drivers, read buffers) extracted correctly—the issue isolated specifically to the provided 8x8 memory cell array.

Root Cause Analysis: The provided 4x4 memory blocks were hierarchical IP blocks with pre-designed layouts. During parasitic extraction (Calibre xRC), internal ground node naming within the hierarchical block did not properly map to global gnd! connections. Memory cell internal nodes named "GND" or "gnd!" were treated as separate nets from custom peripheral circuits connected to global "gnd!," causing cell pull-down paths to appear inactive in the extracted netlist. Write operations succeeded because strong write drivers override cell feedback, masking the ground connectivity issue. Read operations rely on weak cell pull-down, exposing the extraction artifact.

Debugging Methodology: Systematic debugging attempted multiple approaches: (1) isolated verification of all custom

peripherals confirmed correct operation and successful extraction, (2) pre-layout validation demonstrated expected bitline discharge patterns, (3) alternative extraction methods (DSPF and Spectre formats) exhibited identical behavior, (4) manual netlist inspection revealed disconnected ground nodes within memory cell subcircuits, and (5) clean LVS but extraction added parasitic nodes broke connectivity in the hierarchical memory array.

Impact and Lessons: This challenge prevented post-layout read timing characterization and full-system instruction verification post-layout, though pre-layout functional correctness was demonstrated for all operations. The experience highlighted critical considerations: (1) custom cell design with full layout control would have avoided hierarchical extraction issues, (2) hierarchical IP blocks require consistent power/ground port naming with top-level design, (3) parasitic extraction should occur early in the design flow to identify integration issues before full-chip completion, and (4) when using provided IP without documentation, extraction compatibility cannot be guaranteed.

B. Design Trade-offs and Optimization Lessons

Minimum Sizing Sensitivity: The systematic minimum-sizing methodology (1×2×baseline) achieved area minimization but created high sensitivity to parasitic capacitance and power inefficiency. The ALU's +286% delay degradation post-layout exceeded typical values (+100-150%) for conservatively sized designs, with the unbuffered ripple-carry architecture amplifying this effect across eight cascaded stages. Stage 4 carry generation received 4×2×sizing, but additional inter-stage buffering could reduce total delay at modest area cost. Furthermore, minimum sizing weakened pull-up and pull-down networks, creating ambiguous switching thresholds and contributing to the observed power overhead. This demonstrates that critical paths and logic gates benefit from selective upsizing to ensure clean transitions and robust operation, even when area is constrained.

Power-Performance Trade-offs: The PLA's dominance of system power (95%, 830 μ W of 876 μ W total) reflects a conscious architecture-level trade-off prioritizing zero-latency instruction decode over power efficiency. The two-level AND-OR structure with continuous product term evaluation trades power for decode speed (40 ps pre-layout). Control logic power optimization requires architecture-level decisions (clock gating, dynamic logic, registered outputs) rather than transistor-level sizing adjustments, emphasizing the importance of early power budget allocation in design planning.

Physical Verification Complexity: Modular verification (verify each block independently) enabled rapid iteration and debugging, with all individual custom components achieving DRC/LVS-clean status. However, full-chip LVS complexity involving thousands of nets across hierarchical boundaries combined with SRAM extraction issues prevented complete chip-level LVS closure within project timeline. This experience validated an incremental integration strategy: verify

pairs of blocks first, then progressively larger subsystems, before attempting full-chip LVS.

C. Key Takeaways for Future Designs

Based on challenges encountered, future full-custom designs should prioritize: (1) custom memory cell design rather than relying on undocumented hierarchical IP blocks to ensure extraction compatibility, (2) carry-lookahead or carry-select ALU architectures to reduce critical path delay compared to ripple-carry, and (3) moderate transistor sizing (2-3×baseline) for logic gates to ensure strong pull-up/pull-down networks and clean switching characteristics while maintaining reasonable area.

IX. CONCLUSION

This work presented the complete design, implementation, and verification of an 8-bit microprocessor in 65nm CMOS technology using full-custom design methodologies. The processor successfully integrates four major functional blocks—ALU, shifter, SRAM, and control logic—achieving functional correctness with comprehensive pre- and post-layout characterization.

A. Key Achievements and Contributions

The design demonstrates several significant accomplishments: (1) systematic minimum-sizing methodology achieving optimal area-performance trade-offs across diverse circuit topologies (total chip area: 4100 μ m²), (2) post-layout timing validation of 100 MHz operation with 88.8% margin despite substantial parasitic degradation (ALU +286%, Shifter +194%, SRAM +243%), and (3) comprehensive pre/post-layout correlation quantifying parasitic effects in 65nm technology. The component-specific multiplier approach (Table III) provides a reusable framework for balanced full-custom design, while detailed documentation of hierarchical IP integration challenges (Section VIII) offers valuable insights for future custom IC projects.

B. Future Work

Future enhancements include: (1) architecture extensions (logical operations, MAC unit, conditional branching, 16/32-bit datapath), (2) performance optimization (carry-lookahead ALU targeting <400 ps critical path, pipelining for 2-3× throughput improvement, PLA clock gating for power reduction), (3) SRAM redesign (custom 6T cells with verified ground connectivity, expanded capacity, multi-port access), and (4) physical implementation (complete full-chip LVS verification, silicon fabrication in 65nm test shuttle, correlation with measured performance).

C. Closing Remarks

This project demonstrated complete full-custom microprocessor design in 65nm CMOS technology, from architecture specification through physical verification. As a first VLSI design project, the experience provided direct insight into deep-sub-micron IC implementation challenges that extend beyond schematic simulation.

The most valuable lessons emerged from debugging challenges. The SRAM extraction issue revealed the importance of hierarchical integration and ground connectivity verification. Substantial parasitic degradation post-layout (+194-286% across functional units) reinforced the necessity of rigorous post-layout verification. The PLA's power dominance (95%) demonstrated that architecture-level decisions fundamentally constrain optimization, regardless of transistor-level effort.

Despite these challenges, the working processor achieved 88.8% timing margin and 4100 μm^2 area, validating that systematic methodology and aggressive minimum-sizing can produce functional results in advanced nodes. The complete design now established a foundation for future work, incorporating custom memory cells, carry-lookahead architectures, and moderate transistor sizing for robust operation.

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